

Executive Mobility in the United States, 1920–2023^{*}

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Abstract

This paper studies the evolution of U.S. public-firm executive mobility from 1920 to 2023. Executive mobility exhibits a secular increase from the 1920s through the turn of the century. After peaking in the late-1990s, it declined sharply and stabilized at a lower level: chief executive mobility in the 2010s was less than half its late-1990s peak, returning to levels last seen in the 1960s and 1970s. Finance-chief mobility shows a stronger secular rise over the century. We argue that changes in the size of the executive labor market, the redeployability of executive skills, and capital reallocation explain these trends. Using a shift-share instrumental-variables approach, we show that the mobility impacts executive pay.

Keywords: Governance trends; Executive labor market; Mobility; Reallocation

JEL codes: G30, J41

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1. Introduction

A rich literature examines the labor market for corporate executives. This research is important because it sheds light on trends in labor-market conditions, the skill sets required to be a successful executive, and the use and effects of executive compensation. Influential papers by [Huson et al. \(2001\)](#) and [Murphy and Zabojnik \(2007\)](#) document that chief executive officer (CEO) turnover and external-to-the-firm hires increased through the last few decades of the 20th century, which they attribute to general managerial skills becoming more important.¹ Consistent with these implications, the number of firms and occupations in which a typical executive works during her career increased starting in the 1970s ([Frydman, 2019](#)). Other research documents that the level of executive pay and the importance of equity-based compensation increased significantly beginning in the 1980s (e.g., [Murphy, 1999](#); [Gabaix and Landier, 2008](#); [Frydman and Saks, 2010](#)). A common thread in this literature is increasing executive job mobility through about 2000, which is when the data used in many of these papers end. Our paper adds to the executive labor-market literature in six ways.

The first, and key, contribution relates to the fact that the extant literature primarily focuses on the period from 1970 through about 2000. We construct a new dataset of executive moves between U.S. public firms over the 1920–2023 period and document long-term trends in executive mobility over the century. The dataset contains more than 11,000 executive moves and over 395,000 unique executives, involving nearly 22,000 unique firms. While before 1986 fewer than 5% of departing CEOs became executives of other public firms, more than 7% did so during 1986–2000.² Moreover, chief executives moved across an increasingly diverse set of industries over time. In contrast, we show a sharp decline in executive mobility that started in the early 2000s, as executives’ propensity to move to new jobs in other firms decreased significantly after 2001.³ By the 2010s, CEO mobility had declined to levels not seen since the 1960s and 1970s.

¹See also [Kaplan and Minton \(2012\)](#), [Custódio et al. \(2013\)](#) and [Graham et al. \(2020\)](#) for related evidence.

²Throughout the paper, we separately examine different eras of mobility, motivated by previous research, the historical context of Corporate America, as well as our data, that suggests executive mobility began to increase in the mid-1980s (e.g., [Murphy and Zabojnik, 2007](#)).

³This downward trend in executive mobility appears to be consistent with a decline in general labor mobility in the U.S. since about 2000. See, e.g., “[Fewer Americans Uproot Themselves for a New Job](#),” *The Wall Street Journal*, August 20, 2018.

Our second contribution is to document new stylized facts on the nature of executive mobility in the U.S. We show that the majority of executive moves can be characterized as external promotions across multiple dimensions—prestige of the employer, career opportunities, and pay. For instance, a majority of CEO moves across the century are to larger firms with significant pay increases. And when they move to non-CEO positions, their pay increases tend to be larger, consistent with a substitution between the prestige of the position and compensation.

Third, we explore which economic forces are associated with the long-term evolution of executive mobility, focusing on differences in the determinants of mobility across different eras of Corporate America. Our four eras are: 1920–1945 [interwar, Great Depression, and New Deal], 1946–1985 [postwar managerial capitalism], 1986–2000 [deregulation and dot-com], and 2001–2022 [post-dot-com and global financial crisis]. These eras track broad changes in the landscape of Corporate America, and help frame the historical patterns in executive mobility in our data.

Our analyses suggest several key forces are at play. First, the increasing–then–decreasing trend in executive mobility tracks with the changing size of the public firm executive labor market over the past century—i.e., the number of public firms shows a similar increasing–then–decreasing pattern. Importantly, the rate of new public firm entries through initial public offerings (IPOs) is strongly positively correlated with mobility. Second, proxies for the importance of general managerial skills—such as the ratio of enrollment in MBA to engineering master’s programs and the variety of industries to which executives move—are significantly positively correlated with our measures of aggregate mobility, but *only* before 2000. In the post-2000 era, these proxies for general skills do not track with executive mobility. Third, the executive movements are more frequent when the benefits of reallocation are greater—such as when M&A activity is high and aggregate or industry performance dispersion is high.⁴

We build upon these findings to link executive mobility to the “redeployability” of production inputs. When physical assets and labor are redeployable, the required managerial skills are likely similar between firms. We use a long-run time series measure tracking the

⁴This positive relation contrasts with patterns of capital and rank-and-file employee reallocations, which are shown to be negatively related with similar benefits measures (e.g., [Eisfeldt and Rampini \(2006\)](#); [Saks and Wozniak \(2011\)](#)).

redeployability of assets (Kim and Kung, 2017), and construct a complementary measure of cross-industry labor mobility in the U.S. economy. We find that both measures exhibit the same rise-then-fall pattern as executive mobility around the year 2000, and are significant predictors of moves in the last two eras: 1986–2000 (with increasing mobility) and 2001–2022 (decreasing mobility). This finding suggests deep connections between the nature of production inputs, managerial skill, and their mobility, which our data is uniquely able to shed light on.

Our fourth, and more methodological, contribution is developing a new measure of executive mobility. This measure is the product of two components: (i) the propensity with which a departing executive finds new executive work, rather than retiring (e.g., Fee et al., 2019), and (ii) turnover, which creates job openings (e.g., Huson et al., 2001; Murphy and Zbojnik, 2007). We show that the first is a more important driver of the trends in executive mobility, explaining more than two-thirds of the variation in mobility.⁵ We also show that while most of the above-mentioned variables explain trends in both components of aggregate mobility, the associations are more consistently significant for the first component.

Fifth, we show for the first time that the mobility of chief financial officers (CFOs) is higher, and increased faster, than that of CEOs during the 20th century.⁶ The higher CFO mobility is consistent with the finance chief’s skills being more redeployable across firms and industries. The faster-rising CFO mobility since the mid-1980s is consistent with CFOs playing active roles across increasingly broader functional areas over the past several decades (see, e.g., Groysberg et al., 2011).

Lastly, we study the long-run relations between executive mobility and compensation. We provide new stylized facts on the relation of mobility with the level, structure, and dispersion in pay. While we do not make causal claims on these relations, our results suggest a tight link between compensation and mobility across the history of Corporate America, expanding on

⁵Some executive mobility research also uses career paths of given individuals to measure mobility, and often finds a different mobility trend. For example, we document that executive mobility trended up throughout most of the last century. The finding contrasts somewhat with a finding in Frydman (2019) that the mobility of executives at largest public firms, as measured by the number of firms executives worked for during their career, declined between the 1930s and 1960s.

⁶Between 1920–1945 and 1946–1985, the propensity of departing CFOs to become CFOs of other companies increased from 1.4% to 2.7%. But during 1986–2000, this propensity jumped to 10.6%, quadruple the propensity of CEO-to-CEO moves during the same period.

the work by [Frydman and Saks \(2010\)](#).

2. Data and Sample Selection

We construct a comprehensive database of corporate officers, such as the chief executive officer (CEO), chief financial officer (CFO), and various corporate vice presidents (VPs), and their movements across US public firms from 1920 to 2023. We combine information from a number of sources. First, we hand-collect names of corporate executives, as well as financial data on their firms, from Moody's Industrial Manuals ('Moody's') from 1920 to 1988, and also the year 1998. Second, we collect names of corporate executives from Compact Disclosure during 1985-2004. Third, we combine data from Execucomp, Equilar and scraped SEC filings to provide a full picture of executives at US public firms in the 2005-2023 period.⁷ We then use news searches to manually check the validity of all cases of CEO and CFO moves, and collect the new job titles of moving executives and whether the moves were associated with mergers and acquisitions or subsidiary relations.

Our full sample includes 248,156 firm-year observations for 22,340 unique firms and 395,114 executives (including 55,370 CEOs and 51,891 CFOs) from 1920 to 2023. We describe trends in executive mobility using this full sample (see the next section), as well as subsamples for fiscal years 1920-1945, 1946-1985, 1986-2000 and 2001-2022.

3. Trends in Executive Mobility in the Past Century

This section examines long-run trends in the mobility of US corporate executives from 1920-2023 using a sample of executives' movements across firms. We provide evidence that executive mobility across firms and industries increased over the past century; in contrast, mobility trends have reversed in the 21st century. We construct formal variables that measure executive mobility across companies.

⁷Though we collect data from the SEC, Equilar and Execucomp through filing year of 2024 (which covers fiscal year of 2023 for most firms), our sample is only a partial snapshot of fiscal year 2023. Thus, we limit most of our analysis to end in FY2022.

3.1. Propensity and Nature of Executive Mobility over the Century

The breadth of the US executive labor market has changed considerably over the past 90 years. The first four tables explore whether these changes led to improved mobility for executives, CEOs and CFOs in particular. We first document an increase in the magnitude of how often an executive leaving one job takes a job at another company, rather than retires from executive work. Table 1, Panel A shows that among the CEOs who left their jobs during 1920-1945 and 1946-1985, only 3.14% ($= 35/1,113$) and 5.14% ($= 271/5,270$) moved to other firms to become executives within the next two years.⁸ In comparison, during 1986-2000, 7.21% ($= 719/9,969$) of former CEOs became officers at other firms. Lastly, in the 2001-2023 era, only 4.6% ($= 875/19,014$) of former CEOs became executives at new firms. This suggests that the patterns in executive mobility observed in the 1986-2000 period are unique in the history of Corporate America.

A more detailed examination reveals that the propensity of former CEOs to become CEOs at new firms increased in the later two eras. 276 and 485 departing CEOs in the 1986-2000 and 2001-2022 eras became CEOs at new firms (2.77% and 2.55% of all CEO turnovers, respectively). The rates of CEO-CEO mobility in the earlier eras are much lower.⁹ The fraction of former CEOs who move to become non-CEO executives at their new firms also increased, from 1.89% during 1920-1945 to 3.97% in the 1946-1985 era, and 4.44% in the 1986-2000 era. This number fell to 2.05% in the 2001-2022 era.

Turning to the mobility of CFOs, Panel B shows that the propensity of CFOs who leave their initial firms to accept executive positions at other firms increased even more than that of CEOs over the past century. During 1920-1945, only 2.71% of departing CFOs moved to become executives at other companies. By 1946-1985, this propensity nearly doubled to 4.87% and increased again to 13.74% over 1986-2000, and stayed relatively high at 10.64% in the latest era. By this period, the average CFO's propensity to move to another firm is considerably

⁸In Table 1 and throughout the paper, we define an executive move as a given executive leaving a firm and becoming an executive at another firm within two years after the departure.

⁹These fractions of CEO-to-CEO moves are similar to estimates in Gibbons and Murphy (1992) that 2.2% of 1,631 departing CEOs in their dataset become CEOs at other firms during 1970-1988. Also, they find that approximately 3.8% of the departing CEOs take a non-CEO position at another firm, similar to our finding that about 4.1% of departing CEOs became non-CEO officers during 1950-1985.

higher than the average CEO's (4.6%) propensity to move. We will show later that CFO mobility sharply increased and then decreased around 2000, akin to the CEO mobility trends, but the decrease in the latest era is less pronounced.

This higher and faster-increasing mobility of CFOs relative to CEOs over the past century is consistent with the CFO's skills being more general and thus more easily redeployable across firms. Moreover, anecdotal evidence suggests that CFO skills became increasingly "CEO-like," which would also increase their appeal to other firms.¹⁰ Another non-mutually-exclusive explanation for the faster-increasing CFO mobility relative to CEO mobility (especially after 1985) is increasing visibility of CFOs due to improved communication technologies. In particular, increased exposure of public firm CFOs in earnings calls and in the media may have given finance chiefs improved opportunities to move to other firms.¹¹

In addition to the likelihood of moving to a new firm, we also explore the breadth of new positions. We find that throughout 1920-2023, common first non-CEO job titles of moving CEOs at the new firm include President (36.4%), VP (17.7%), and COO (8.7%). Thus, as explored in more detail below, it appears not uncommon for former CEOs to move as non-CEO executives of larger (and likely more complex) firms, and sometimes ultimately become CEO of the new firm. In comparison, a relatively higher proportion of CFOs (about three quarters) move to a CFO position in their new companies. A plausible explanation for this difference is that CFOs' skills, while more portable across firms and industries, are specific to corporate finance functions. As a result, it is rare that previous CFOs become chief operating officers (COOs) or divisional managers that require operation-specific skills. It is also rare that CFOs become CEOs (see the last row of Table 1), but over time this proportion has grown.

Table 2 explores a related question on the nature of executive moves: Do executive job movements represent external promotions? Answering this question is important to understand how firms might respond to changing external job opportunities of their own execu-

¹⁰See, e.g., Groysberg et al. (2011) and "[Johnson Controls Hires Company Outsider as Finance Chief](#)," The Wall Street Journal, August 18, 2020. These articles suggest that CFOs are increasingly involved with operation-related roles such as product development and technology, as well as traditional roles such as managing acquisitions.

¹¹Also, the magnitude of the CFO pay increase in the last two decades is smaller than the increase in CEO pay, which may have led finance chiefs to continue to work longer than chief executives. Using Frydman and Saks (2010) and ExecuComp data, we find that the average total CEO (CFO) compensation increased by \$2.4 million (\$1.1 million) over 1986-2023.

tives, which we examine in Section 4.6. The first three columns show that CEOs on average move to larger firms and receive a large pay increase. Over the full sample period (1920-2022), 62.20% of CEO moves are to larger firms, measured by total assets. A larger fraction of CEOs (70.10%) move to a bigger company when they become non-CEO executives at a new firm. In comparison, the table also shows that CEOs become CEOs at larger firms only half the time (50.51% in the 2001-2022 era, for example). This is perhaps surprising, given the literature on competitive assignment (e.g. [Gabaix and Landier, 2008](#)).

Interestingly, pay increases of CEOs moving to be non-CEOs at larger firms are much larger than those moving to be CEOs. CEO-CEO transitions see a 76.15% increase in pay, where pay is measured as the sum of salary, bonus, stock and options pay (measured in fair value).¹² In contrast, the increase in pay for moves to be non-CEO executives (generally at larger firms) is nearly 200%.

These results are consistent with CEOs moving to other firms to receive either (1) job-title-prestige and higher pay, or (2) less-job-title-prestige but a larger pay increase at a larger company, which may offer increased career opportunities in the future. Thus, the full sample results in Table 2 suggest that the majority of CEO moves can be characterized as external promotions across multiple dimensions, in terms of prestige of the employer, career opportunities, and pay. In terms of trends, while moving to larger firms became more common between 1920-1945 and 1946-1985, particularly for CEO-to-non-CEO moves, this trend has reversed in the latest era particularly.

An interesting fact about pay increases when CEOs and CFOs switch firms is that the average pay increase that executives receive in the latest era (2001-2022) has fallen dramatically, particularly for CFOs. This suggests that large pay packages (outside options) tempted executives to new firms in the 1986-2000 era were an important driver of mobility.

3.2. Cross-Industry Mobility of Executives

The previous section shows that the propensity of departing corporate executives to find new executive work increased over the past century. We now examine trends in the frequency at which executives move to jobs in other industries among the subset of moves, which could

¹²We thank [Frydman and Saks \(2010\)](#) for sharing their pre-1992 data with researchers.

be an important element of the mobility patterns documented in the previous section. Table 3 illustrates trends in cross-industry mobility by presenting the fraction of CEO moves from an “origin” to a “destination” industry. For compactness, this “graphical” analysis relies on one-digit SIC codes but in our empirical analysis of executive retention strategies in Section 4.6, we use two-digit SIC codes. Panel A (1920-1945) and Panel B (1946-1985) show that before 1986, over 60% of CEO moves-to-new-firms, including moves to same- and different-industry firms, occur within the manufacturing sector (SIC = 2 or 3). This magnitude fell to about 50% in the third era (1986-2000), and fell to about 40% in the final era. Thus, Panel C demonstrates a more varied set of origin and destination industries for external CEO hires in recent decades.

We formally examine the diversity of industries across which CEOs move using the Herfindahl-Hirschman Index (HHI) of the fraction of moves between industry pairs. This concentration measure of between-industry moves was 17.55% during 1920-1945, 15.75% during 1946-1985, and decreased to 6.64% and 6.18% during 1986-2000 and 2001-2022, respectively, indicating that CEO moves in the later period are more widely dispersed across industries. In addition, we find that “off-diagonal” movements (i.e., across different industries) became more frequent over the century: the fraction of across-different-industry movements was about 37% during 1920-1945, and increased to 47% and 48% in the second and third eras. The finding that CEOs moved to a more diverse set of industries in recent decades is consistent with the increasing importance of general managerial skills, as opposed to industry- or firm-specific skills, in the executive labor market (Murphy and Zabochnik, 2007; Custódio et al., 2013; Frydman, 2019). However, this cross-industry mobility reversed in the final era, with only 42% of moves, suggesting that perhaps the demand for CEOs’ general managerial skills may have changed somewhat.

Table 4 presents the analogous fraction of CFO moves from one industry to another, and shows that the patterns are largely similar. CFO cross-industry mobility is on average higher in all eras than CEO mobility, consistent with CFO skills applying more readily across industries.

3.3. Trends in Formal Measures of Executive Mobility

3.3.1. Measures of Executive Mobility

To further examine the time-series changes in executive mobility and the factors that drive the trends, we formally construct aggregate measures of executive mobility. Specifically, we measure executive mobility as the total number of CEOs who move to other firms as executives, scaled by the lagged total number of CEOs, or separately, scaled by the lagged total number of CEO turnover events. These aggregate measures capture the propensity at which sitting or leaving CEOs are hired by other firms. (We repeat the same calculations for CFOs.) The resulting measures are defined as follows:

$$Mobility_t = \underbrace{\frac{\# \text{ CEO (or CFO) moves}_t}{\# \text{ CEOs (or CFOs)}_{t-1}}}_{(A)} \quad \text{or} \quad \underbrace{\frac{\# \text{ CEO (or CFO) moves}_t}{\# \text{ CEO (or CFO) turnovers}_{t-1}}}_{(B)} \quad (1)$$

where $Mobility_t$ is an aggregate measure of mobility for CEOs in year t , $\# \text{ CEO moves}_t$ is the number of CEOs in year $t-2$ or $t-1$ who become officers at another firm in year t ; $\# \text{ CEOs}_{t-1}$ is the number of CEOs, and $\# \text{ CEO turnovers}_{t-1}$ is the number of CEO turnovers in year $t-1$. Analogous mobility measures can be constructed for CFOs.

An executive may move to another firm because she is looking for an opportunity at unrelated firms or because of mergers and acquisitions (M&As). To account of the effects of M&As, we construct two versions of our executive mobility measures — the first one accounts for all moves, and the second one excludes moves directly tied to M&As or subsidiary relations (see [Frydman \(2019\)](#) for a related discussion).

3.3.2. Trends in Executive Mobility

Figure 1, Panel A shows that the two measures of CEO mobility that are scaled by the number of CEOs (A in Eq. 1), whether including or excluding M&A / subsidiary-related events, move in parallel from 1921 through 2022 ($\rho = 0.957$).¹³ The dashed gray line showing the difference between the two measures indicates that the portion of mobility due to M&As or across sub-

¹³Our mobility measures require the lagged number of CEOs or turnovers, and thus begin in 1921. It ends in 2022 as we do not have all observations of firms in 2023

sidiaries is relatively stable across the century. That is, M&A trends do not drive aggregate mobility trends. Panel B presents the measures scaled by the number of CEO turnover events (B in Eq. 1), which exhibit similar patterns with the mobility measures shown in Panel A. Given that M&As or subsidiary relations do not drive mobility in an important way, our analysis below relies primarily on the mobility measures that include executive moves associated with M&As or subsidiaries.

Note that our first mobility measure for CEOs in Eq. (1) can be re-written as:

$$\begin{aligned}
 Mobility_t &= \underbrace{\frac{\# CEO\ moves_t}{\# CEOs_{t-1}}}_{(A)} \\
 &= \underbrace{\frac{\# CEO\ moves_t}{\# CEO\ turnovers_{t-1}}}_{(B)} \times \underbrace{\frac{\# CEO\ turnovers_{t-1}}{\# CEOs_{t-1}}}_{(C)} \quad (2)
 \end{aligned}$$

Panel C of Figure 1 presents this decomposition of the first mobility measure (A) into these two components: (B) the number of CEO moves scaled by the number of CEO turnovers (which is the second mobility measure in Eq. (1)), and (C) the turnover rate (i.e., the number of CEO turnovers scaled by the number of CEOs). Thus, our mobility measure (A) nests the two main proxies for executive mobility employed in the literature—the propensity of departing executives to find new executive work (B) and turnover rate (C) (e.g. [Huson et al., 2001](#); [Murphy and Zabochnik, 2007](#); [Frydman, 2019](#)) and allows us to examine which approach is more informative.

Panel C shows that the components reinforce each other when mobility increases and then decreases from the 1980s through 2000s; nonetheless, the first component (B), which captures the propensity of departing executives to find new executive work, is the dominant driver of executive mobility: a statistical decomposition shows that the variation in the log of the first component drives approximately 78% of the variation in the log of the overall mobility measure (and the second component, turnover rate, and its covariance with the first term drive 22%). In addition, the first component is more similar to overall mobility in its steady increase from the mid-1980s to 2000. These results highlight one contribution of our paper relative

to previous work: showing that executive mobility involves departing executives finding new executive-level jobs (B) in addition to executive turnover (C); and documenting that the former is empirically the more important element of mobility.

Both elements of mobility generally trended up throughout most of the sample period, consistent with the overall trends we presented in the previous sections. In an unreported regression, we find that a linear time trend accounts for nearly 30% of variation in aggregate CEO mobility from 1921 to 2023. However, as we explore below, a time-trend does not alone explain trends in executive mobility, given the sharp decline that began in about 2000.

The mobility measures for CFOs shown in Figure 2 exhibit similarly increasing long-run trends until the late-1990s, when they began to decline as did the measures for CEOs. The key difference is that the magnitude of the increase during the late-1980s and 1990s, as well as the peak level in the late-1990s, is much higher for CFOs. As mentioned above, potential explanations for the greater increase in CFOs' mobility relative to CEOs' include the increased visibility of CFOs due to their changing roles (e.g., more like CEOs') and improved communication technology over the last two decades of the 20th century. Nonetheless, CFO mobility exhibits a familiar downward trend post-2000. In the next section, we turn to the analysis of what explains these mobility trends.

4. Explaining Executive Mobility Trends

The previous section documents generally increasing executive mobility in the past century, with the trend reversed in the last two decades of the sample. In this section, we explore potential explanations for these trends, with a focus on explaining the increasing-then-decreasing pattern from the 1980s to the 2020s. Existing research argues and provides some evidence that increasing importance of general managerial human capital can explain the increase in executive mobility during the 1980s and 1990s (e.g. [Murphy and Zabojnik, 2007](#); [Frydman, 2019](#)). However, this research does not document the subsequent decline in mobility (because the samples used in the previous research end around the turn of the century).

4.1. Labor Market Size

Over the past two decades, the number of public firms has declined, reversing the long-run upward trend observed prior to the 2000s (e.g., [Doidge et al., 2017](#)). To the extent that the executive labor market for public firms is segmented from that of private firms, this decline implies decreasing market size for executives we study.¹⁴ A smaller market, in turn, increases search frictions between firms and managers, thereby reducing mobility.¹⁵

Panel A of Figure 3 shows that executive labor market size—proxied by the log number of firms listed on the NYSE, Amex, and Nasdaq—exhibits long-run trends that closely track those in mobility, with a time-series correlation of 0.58. As the number of public firms increased over the first three eras (1920–2000), mobility displays a corresponding secular upward trend. In contrast, during the final era (2001–2023), both the number of public firms and executive mobility decline sharply. Section 4.5 shows that this long-run correlation between market size and mobility is robust to accounting for moves to private firms.

Panel B examines newly listed firms as a potential driver of executive mobility. Specifically, we analyze the relation between CEO mobility and the ratio of newly listed to existing public firms over 1977–2023.¹⁶ The two series are strongly positively correlated ($\rho = 0.65$), with the correlation increasing in the post-1990 period ($\rho = 0.84$). These patterns suggest that newly public firms are an important source of executive mobility within the labor market. In particular, the evidence is consistent with our earlier finding that smaller/young firms tend to hire CEOs outside the firm (Appendix Figure X). Appendix X provides case studies illustrating that newly listed firms value the experience of executives from established public firms, including expertise in IPO processes and investor relations.

4.2. Redeployability of Executive Skills

The preceding analysis assumes that executives of public firms possess general skills that facilitates mobility across firms. In addition to this general human capital, executives are likely

¹⁴Consistent with segmentation between public and private firm executive labor markets, [Cziraki and Jenter \(2022\)](#) show that 80% of executives hired by S&P500 firms come from US public firms.

¹⁵See [Diamond \(1982\)](#) for a seminal work linking market size to search frictions. [Petrongolo and Pissarides \(2006\)](#) and [Moretti and Yi \(2024\)](#) provide evidence that large markets facilitate job searches.

¹⁶The analysis begins in 1977 due to data availability on initial public offerings (IPOs). We thank Jay Ritter for making IPO data publicly available.

to possess specialized skills, such as knowledge of the firm’s products, assets, and workforce. Such specialization may limit mobility across firms operating in different market segments. Time variation in the redeployability of managerial skills therefore offers a natural explanation for the long-run variation in mobility that we document. In this section, we test this hypothesis using several approaches.

First, a substantial portion of executive skills is likely industry-specific (e.g., Neal, 1995). We therefore use executives’ observed ability to move across industries (see, e.g., Table 3) as a proxy for the redeployability of their skills. Specifically, we compute the Herfindahl–Hirschman index (HHI) of the distribution of between-industry CEO moves—defined at the one-digit SIC level—over the trailing ten years, and use its inverse as a measure of redeployability. Panel A of Figure 3 shows that the long-run trend in this redeployability measure is strongly positively correlated with the trend in CEO mobility ($\rho = 0.58$). In the pre-1945 period, when CEO skills appear most industry-specific, executive mobility is at its lowest. As cross-industry moves become more frequent in the second era¹⁷—and especially during 1986–2000—overall mobility increases. In the most recent period, both redeployability and mobility decline sharply, albeit with a slight timing difference, consistent with CEO skills in the US becoming more industry-specific over the past two decades.

In the next two approaches, we examine time variation in the redeployability of executives’ skills in managing firm capital and labor—two primary inputs of production—which may also underlie the cross-industry mobility patterns documented above. The idea is that when firms employ similar types of capital and labor, managerial skills are more easily redeployable across firms, increasing executive mobility.

For capital, we use the annual mean of industry-level asset redeployability measures from Kankanhalli et al. (2026), who extend the measure in Kim and Kung (2017) to 1920–2023 using Bureau of Economic Analysis (BEA) data on fixed asset investment by industry and asset type. Assets that are more widely used across industries are classified as more redeployable. For labor, we compute the annual mean HHI of the distribution of between-industry worker

¹⁷The modest increase in cross-industry mobility in the “mid-century” is consistent with the notion in the era that management is a general capability irrespective of the knowledge bases of the firm. Still, many firms were run by highly specialized, salaried professionals, which limited broader mobility (Langlois, 2023).

moves—defined at the 1990 Census Industry Code (CIC) level—using the Census worker-level data, and use its inverse as a measure of worker redeployability over 1976–2023.¹⁸

Panel B of Figure 4 shows that aggregate asset redeployability in the US economy evolves markedly across the four eras. It is lowest in the first era, rises modestly in the second, and increases sharply beginning in the 1980s, peaking around 2000. Although redeployability declines after 2000, the magnitude of the decline is smaller than the preceding run-up. These dynamics closely mirror the century-long evolution of executive mobility—including the peak around 2000—and are strongly positively correlated with mobility ($\rho = 0.59$).

Panel C shows that between-industry mobility among rank-and-file employees exhibits a similar increase-then-decrease pattern around 2000. In levels, labor redeployability over the past decade remains higher than its pre-1980s run-up level, paralleling the patterns observed for asset redeployability and executives’ cross-industry mobility. Overall, these results indicate substantial time variation over the century in the redeployability of firms’ assets and workforces across industries, which in turn contributes to variation in corporate executive mobility.

4.3. Capital Reallocation and Mobility

Capital reallocation in the economy is another *a priori* plausible determinant of executives mobility for two reasons. First, greater capital reallocation may reflect higher benefits to reallocation of resources (e.g., Eisfeldt and Shi, 2018), including managers. Second, top executives are deeply involved in capital reallocation decisions, such as mergers and acquisitions (Eisfeldt and Rampini, 2008).¹⁹ Thus, as capital reallocation activity increases, the redeployable skills required to manage acquisitions and restructuring (e.g., Custódio et al., 2013) become more valuable, thereby facilitating mobility.

Panel D of Figure 3 plots the intensity of capital reallocation over the sample period, measured as the log number of M&A deals involving public firms.²⁰ The figure highlights several

¹⁸The 1990 CIC approximately corresponds to the three-digit SIC. The Census Bureau begins reliably tracking worker identifiers in 1976, allowing us to measure their mobility.

¹⁹Eisfeldt and Rampini (2008) develop a model and provide evidence showing that managerial agency leads to a positive correlation between aggregate capital reallocation and CEO turnover over the business cycle.

²⁰We construct the M&A series from three sources. For 1921–1962, we use the *Historical Statistics of the United States* (1975), which lists FTC-registered M&As in the manufacturing, mining, and construction industries. For

distinct merger waves. The first occurred during the 1960s, characterized by the acquisition of unrelated businesses within conglomerate structures.²¹ A second wave began with the debt-financed leveraged buyout (LBO) boom of the late 1980s, followed by the stock-driven M&A surge of the 1990s.²²

CEO mobility co-moves closely with these waves, rising during periods of intense capital reallocation activity and receding as booms subside (e.g., the 1970s and post-2000), even when excluding moves directly triggered by an acquisition. Consequently, the two series are highly correlated ($\rho = 0.74$). These results, corroborated by historical accounts, suggest that capital reallocation explains a significant portion of executive mobility, likely by proxying for the returns to reallocation or the increasing importance of redeployable managerial skills required to oversee restructuring.

4.4. Time-Series Regression Analysis

The previous sections present graphical relations between executive mobility and various economic variables. Some of these variables appear to co-move with the increasing-then-decreasing pattern of executive mobility. In this section, we use a regression framework to formally analyze the time-series relation between variables in Figure 3 and CEO mobility, with a focus on whether the variables help explain the increasing and/or decreasing mobility patterns across eras. Specifically, we estimate the following equation:

$$Mobility_t = \sum_{k=1}^4 \left(\alpha_k \cdot era_t + \beta_k \cdot X_t \cdot era_t \right) + \gamma \cdot M_t + \varepsilon_t \quad (3)$$

where era_t represents our four eras: 1920-1945, 1946-1985, 1986-2000, and 2001-2022 and $Mobility_t$ represents our measure of aggregate executive mobility in year t defined in Eq. (1). X_t includes explanatory variables that capture such aggregate factors as executive labor mar-

1963–1982, we use the Mergerstat Review, which covers deals involving a meaningful transfer of control (e.g., ownership $\geq 10\%$) and a minimum reported value of \$1 million. From 1983 onward, we rely on SDC Platinum. We recognize that sample compositions may vary across these three series.

²¹A common explanation for this “conglomeration” wave is the stringent postwar antitrust environment, which was most hostile to horizontal mergers and more permissive toward diversifying, unrelated acquisitions (CITE).

²²See [Murphy \(2013\)](#) for a historical account of the rise of the market for corporate control. Murphy argues that the pursuit of inefficient diversification and excessive firm size in prior decades catalyzed the active corporate restructuring markets of the 1980s and 1990s ([Murphy, 2013](#), p. 267).

ket size, benefits of reallocating executives, and the importance of general managerial skills as introduced in the previous sections. M_t represents a vector of macroeconomic variables including the growth rate in real GDP, BAA-AAA credit spread, aggregate productivity, and three-month T-bill rate, NBER recession indicator, and the aggregate standard deviation of ROA. To account for serial correlations both in the mobility measure and explanatory variables, we use Newey-West standard errors with four years of lag. This specification allows us to study how the drivers of CEO mobility have changed across time, as motivated by Figure 3.

Table 5 summarizes the regression results based on the mobility measure capturing the propensity of sitting executives to find new executive work (A in Eq. 4). In the table, for each column, we display era-specific slopes. For example, column 1 shows the era-specific slope of the relation between CEO mobility and the log number of public firms. We also display the average effect, calculated as the observation-count-weighted effect from the piecewise linear regression.

In column 1, we find that, overall, the size of the labor market drives mobility. However, the relationship is only strongly positive in Eras 3 and 4; a similar finding arises for column 2 when we look at the rate of IPOs in the economy.

In columns 3 and 4, we study the relation between CEO mobility and M&A. On average, there is a strong relation, but the effects are particularly strong in the 1986-2000 era. As such, reallocation overall seems to be an important driver of mobility.

Our two proxies for general skills: cross-industry CEO mobility and MBA entrants into economy both strongly correlate, but only in the 1986-2000 period. In particular, there is a null relation in the 2001-2022 era. This result suggests that general managerial skills, while an important driver in the run-up of executive mobility in 1986-2000, play less of an important role, and perhaps more firm-specific skills dominate (Murphy and Zbojnik, 2007; Barry et al., 2025).

We also undertake time series regression analysis in Table 6. The measures both strongly positively correlate with CEO mobility in the 1986-2000 and 2001-2022 eras, confirming the visual evidence that the fall in redeployability of capital and labor mirrors the fall in executive mobility.

4.5. Robustness: The Impact of Executives Moving to Private Firms

A potential explanation for the measured trends in executive mobility concerns a changing fraction of executives moved from public to private firms, which we do not observe because private firms are not accounted for in our data. For example, the decline in the executive mobility measures during the 2000s may be due to an increasing fraction of executives moving from public to private firms. To investigate this possibility, we randomly select approximately 10% of the final observed year of firm-CEO pairs in our sample and track out-of-sample career paths of these CEOs after their departure using Marquis Who's Who (which contains information on private firm employment).

We first confirm that this alternative data source also indicates increasing propensities for public firm CEOs to move to public firms over the past century (as we find in our main sample). During the 1920-1949, 1950-1985, and 1986-2011 periods, 1.6%, 4.2%, and 6.3% of departing CEOs moved to public companies as executives. These trends align with our main findings. Important for this robustness check, Who's Who allows us to document the rate at which departing public firm CEOs move to private firms, which has increased from 3.3%, 4.5%, and to 5.5% across the three eras.

Importantly, we do not find evidence that the recent decline in mobility is due to an increase in the public to private firm moves of CEOs. We find that the rate of public firm CEOs moving to public firms is 8.2% (3.4%) during the 1986-1999 (2000-2011) period, confirming the pattern in our data. Also, the rate of public firm CEOs moving to private firms only slightly increases (from 5.3% to 5.8%) across the periods. Therefore, an increasing propensity of movements from public to private firms does not account for the decline in our mobility measures after 2000.²³

4.6. Cross-Sectional Determinants of Executive Mobility

The previous two sections document time-series trends in aggregate executive mobility over the past century and propose plausible explanations for the trends. In this section, we explore

²³It is also possible that if CEOs are on average older in the 2000-2011 period (because for example they continue to work later in life), then mobility might decline. However, we do not find evidence of this possibility: average ages of CEOs differ only slightly between 1986-1999 (55.9) and 2000-2011 (58.5).

drivers of executive mobility in the cross-section of firms. This analysis sheds light on whether drivers of time-series mobility also explain across-firm heterogeneity, including which firm and CEO characteristics (such as firm size and CEO tenure) are associated with labor market mobility. To address these questions, we estimate the following logistic regression using a panel of firms from 1921-2022:²⁴

$$\mathbf{1} [Move]_{ijt} = \alpha_t + \gamma \cdot X_{ijt} + \varepsilon_{ijt} \quad (4)$$

where $\mathbf{1} [Move]_{ijt}$ is an indicator that is equal to one when the CEO of firm i in industry j as of year t moved to another firm in our sample by year $t+1$ or $t+2$ (i.e., within next two years), and zero otherwise; α_t represents year fixed effects; X_{ijt} represents a vector of firm, CEO, and industry characteristics including firm ROA, Tobin's Q , size (measured by log total assets), CEO tenure, and the two-digit SIC industry average and standard deviation of ROA for firm i in industry j in year t ; and ε_{ijt} represents random errors double clustered both at the two-digit SIC industry and year levels. All variables are Winsorized at the 1% and 99% levels to mitigate potential influences of outliers.

Table 8, presents estimation results for Eq. (4) based on the full sample (columns 1-3), and for a subsample of firm-years in which there is CEO departure (columns 4-6). Thus, columns 1-3 estimate the cross-sectional determinants of CEO mobility for sitting CEOs, similar to the mobility measure (A) in Eq. (2), which scales the number of CEO moves by the lagged number of CEOs. Columns 4-6 shows the cross-sectional determinants of CEO mobility conditional on turnover, similar to the first component of the mobility measure (B) in Eq. (2), representing the propensity of departing executives to find new executive work.

These regressions document several cross-sectional patterns of CEO mobility. First, consistent with CEO reallocation being more frequent when the benefits are greater, as shown above for aggregate mobility, column 2 in the two panels shows that the coefficients on the across-firm standard deviation of ROA in a given industry are significantly positive. Second, firm performance measured by ROA and Tobin's Q is negatively associated with the CEO's propensity to move to other firms as executive. In addition, industry-level average ROA is

²⁴We obtain quantitatively similar results using a linear probability model.

also negatively correlated with CEO mobility. These results are consistent with our time-series finding that executives tend to move in “bad times” (Table 5). Third, the coefficients on firm size are significantly positive in Panel A, suggesting that sitting CEOs of larger companies exhibit higher mobility. This result supports the assumption that larger firms offer better career opportunities. Lastly, the negative coefficients on CEO tenure suggest that short-tenure CEOs are more likely to move across firms than long-tenure CEOs.

Columns 7-9 presents estimation results for a version of Eq. (4) that uses an indicator for CEO turnover as dependent variable on the full sample. Thus, the panel shows the cross-sectional determinants of CEO turnover, similar to the second component of the mobility measure (C) in Eq. (2). The estimates confirm that the portion of CEO mobility due to turnover largely reinforces the cross-sectional patterns we find in Panels A and B — CEOs depart more when the benefits of reallocation are larger and the firm or industry performs worse; and larger firm CEOs experience more churning in the labor market. Consistent with the cross-sectional mobility results for CEOs capturing patterns of executive mobility in general, we find quantitatively similar results when we estimate Eq. (4) using CFO moves and turnovers (untabulated). Overall, the evidence in Table 8 shows that firm and industry performance and its dispersion are key determinants of mobility in the cross-section, consistent with our time-series evidence.

5. Impacts of Executive Mobility: Compensation

This section provides evidence of the economic links between executive mobility and compensation using two empirical approaches: an aggregate time-series analysis and a firm-level analysis using a shift-share instrumental variables (IV) approach.

5.1. Time-Series Analysis of Compensation

Models of executive compensation provide frameworks for these linkages. First, the competitive assignment models of [Gabaix and Landier \(2008\)](#); [Terviö \(2008\)](#) show that, in a benchmark competitive market equilibrium, executive pay increases with firm size. This relationship implies that labor market frictions—such as search costs and the specificity of executive skills—

reduce market competitiveness and weaken the pay-firm sensitivity.

Panels A and B of Figure 5 illustrate the historical relationship among pay, firm size, and mobility. Panel A plots the ratio of total CEO pay to firm size, proxied by market capitalization, while Panel B reports the elasticity of pay to firm size estimated over 5-year rolling windows. Consistent with theoretical predictions, both measures indicate that the pay-size sensitivity was low prior to 1985 (see also [Frydman and Saks \(2010\)](#)),²⁵ a period characterized by relatively low executive mobility and significant labor market frictions. As mobility rises rapidly beginning in the mid-1980s, the pay-size elasticity increases in tandem. Mirroring recent trends in mobility, both measures have declined since 2000.

Second, dynamic agency models highlight the connection between executive mobility and incentives. For example, [Chemla et al. \(2025\)](#) develop a model in which managerial incentives come from both termination costs and high-powered compensation (such as equity-based pay). In their framework, greater mobility lowers termination costs, thereby increasing the relative importance of incentive pay. Consistent with this prediction, Panel C shows that the mean fraction of equity-based CEO compensation—stock grants and options—generally rises with mobility through 2000 before declining through the 2000s (both options and equity shares) and 2010s (options only).²⁶ The mobility pattern more closely tracks the fraction of option-based pay than total equity-based pay, consistent with options providing higher-powered incentives to executives and therefore more sensitive to variation in mobility.

In Panel C, we analyze the relation between mobility and pay dispersion. As noted by [Jochem et al. \(2018\)](#), executive pay dispersion in the US has fallen dramatically across time. This suggests that the “outside option” channel of potentially-high paying jobs has also become less important, which may have an impact on executive mobility. We find that this appears to be the case, when pay dispersion is high, mobility is high, and vice-versa.

In Table 7, we engage in time series analysis, and find that the visual patterns are mostly supported, even after controlling for important macro controls and time trends. In particular,

²⁵[Gabaix and Landier \(2008\)](#) use ExecuComp and Compustat data for 1992–2004, focusing on the 1,000 highest-paid CEOs each year, and estimate an average elasticity of total compensation to firm size of approximately 0.3. This estimate lies near the midpoint of our comparable estimates over the same period (see Panel B).

²⁶CEO compensation data cover 1936–2022 and are from [Frydman and Saks \(2010\)](#) and ExecuComp. We thank Carola Frydman for making her dataset available on her website. ExecuComp data are adjusted for backfilling following [Gillan et al. \(2020\)](#).

equity share was a major driver in the 1986-2000 era, but has fallen off in the later era. The pay-size ratio, pay-size elasticity and pay dispersion measures both track executive mobility closely across both of the later eras.

5.2. Shift-Share Instrumental-Variables Analysis

[TBD]

6. Conclusion

We uncover several new long-run trends in the job mobility of executives by constructing a new dataset of executive movements during 1920-2022. CEO and CFO mobility generally increased over the six decades leading up to the end of the 20th century. This increase was accompanied by executives moving across an increasingly diverse set of industries over time. In stark contrast, following an inflection point around 2000, executive mobility declined sharply, returning to levels not seen since the 1980s.

We offer several explanations for the evolution of mobility over the century, including changing benefits to reallocating executives across firms, labor market size, and importance of general managerial ability. A key takeaway is that the benefits to executive reallocation are significantly positively associated with aggregate mobility both when mobility was increasing (before 2000) and also when mobility was decreasing (after 2000). Future research should explore the ramifications of the decreasing executive mobility for corporate policies, as well as why executive movements across firms appear more efficient relative to reallocation of rank-and-file employees and capital assets.

We also document substantial time-series co-movement between executive mobility and equity-based executive pay, and investigate whether the relation is due to firms' attempt to retain executives when their mobility increases.

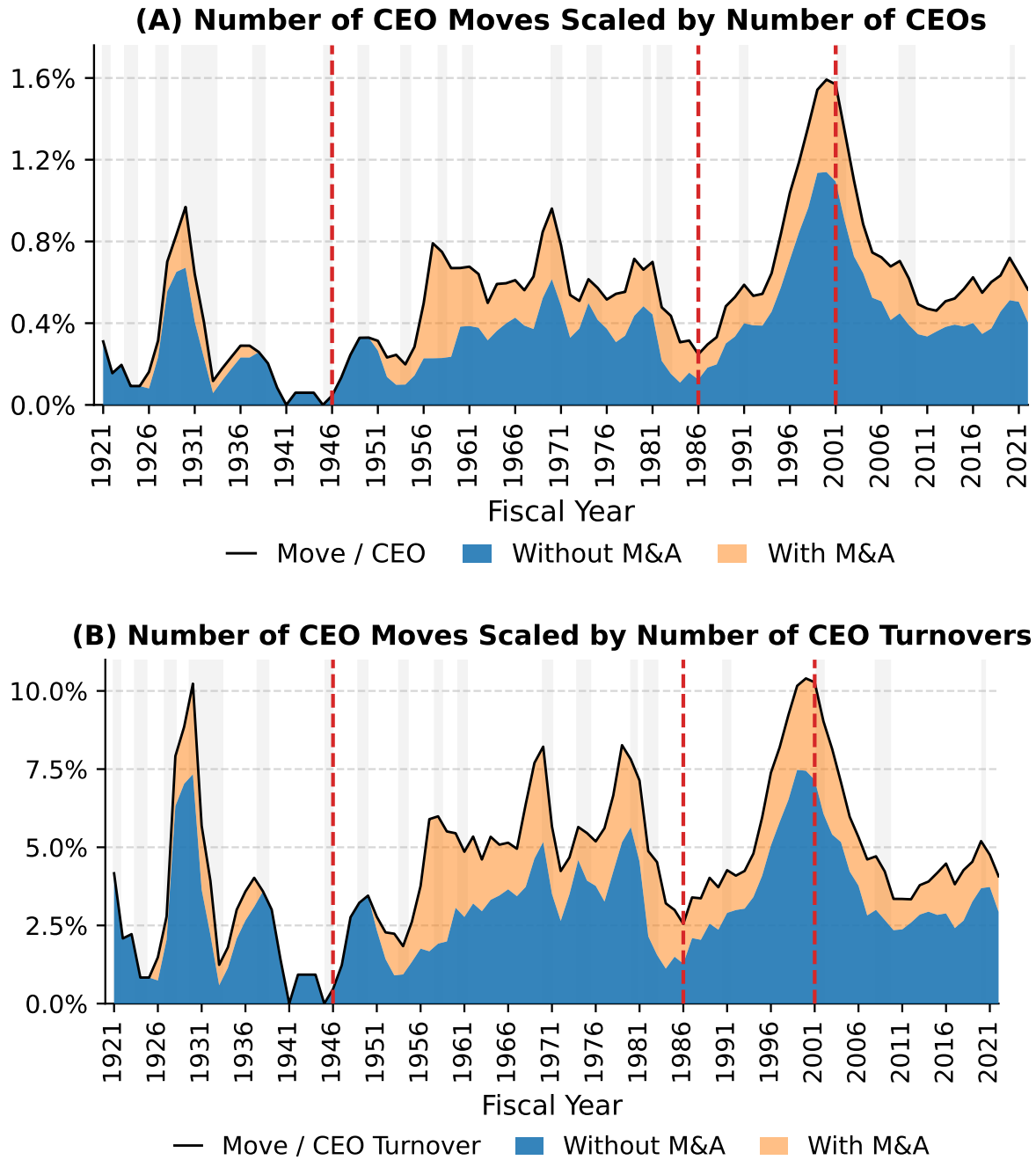
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Figure 1. Measures of Executive Mobility for CEOs

This figure plots three measures of executive mobility for CEOs from 1921 through 2021 (three-year moving average). Move is the number of CEOs in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ who become CEOs or other executive officers at other firms in our sample in year t . CEO is the total number CEOs in year $t - 1$. Turnover is the number of CEOs who leave firms in year $t - 1$. All Moves includes all CEO movements while Moves without M&As excludes M&A or subsidiary-related moves. Moves with M&As is M&A or subsidiary-related moves. Panel C decomposes (A) Move/CEO into (B) Move/Turnover and (C) Turnover/CEO as in Eq. (2) and shows how each component evolves over time.



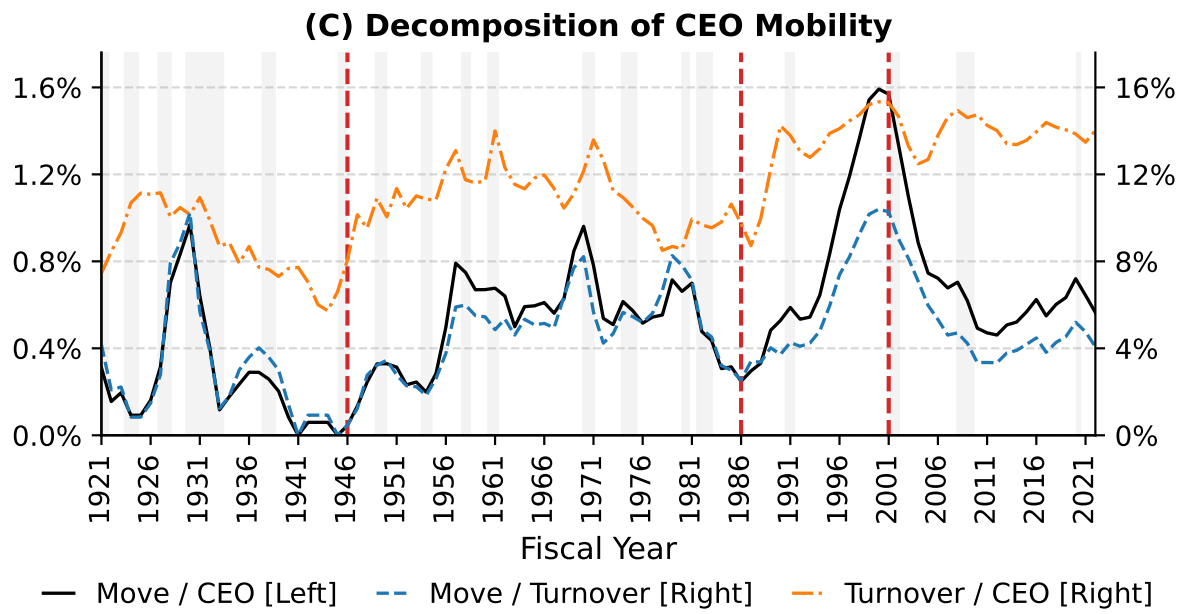
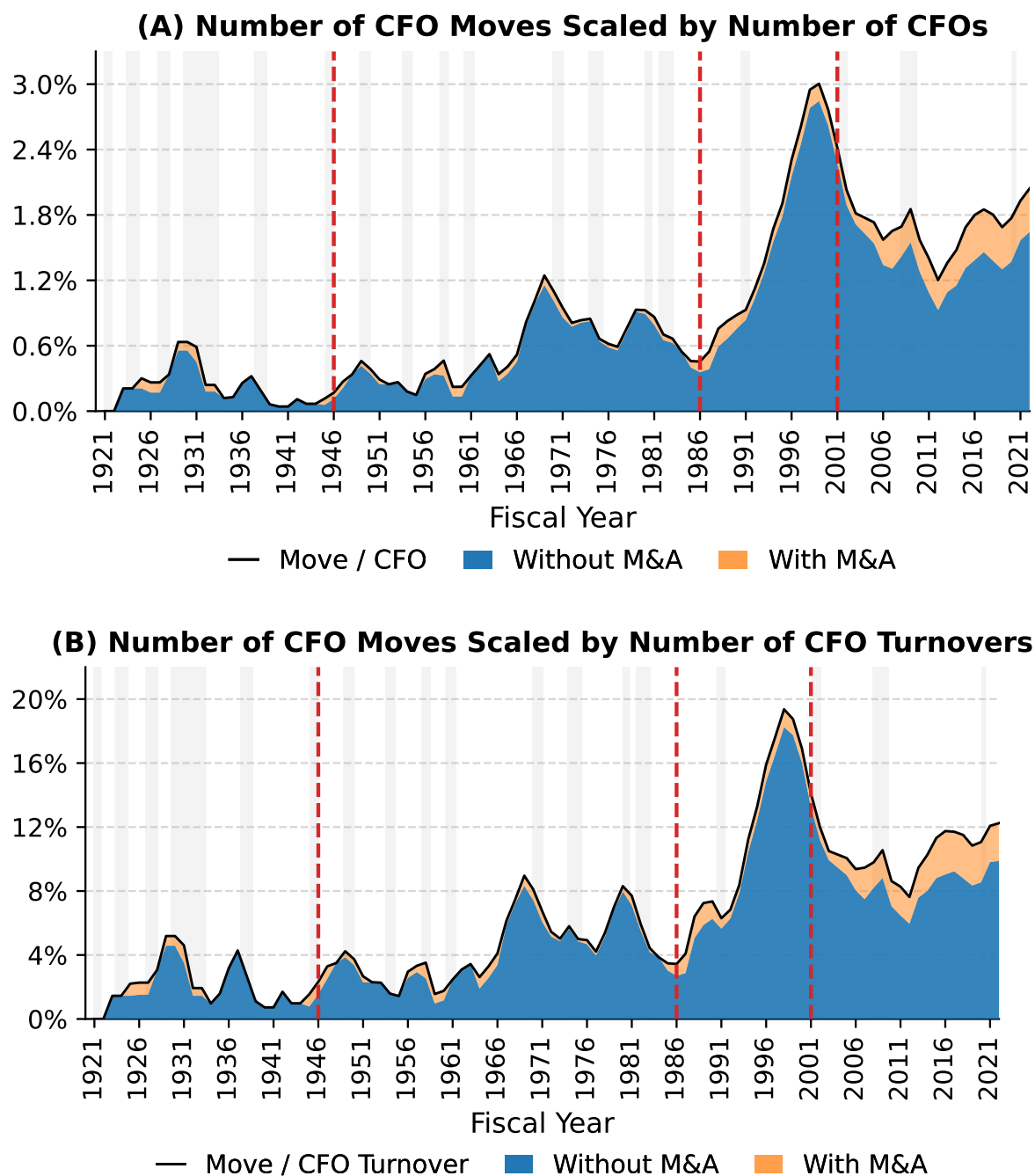


Figure 2. Measures of Executive Mobility for CFOs

This figure plots three measures of executive mobility for CFOs from 1921 through 2021 (three-year moving average). Move is the number of CFOs in year $t-2$ or $t-1$ who become CFOs or other executive officers at other firms in our sample in year t . CFO is the total number CFOs in year $t-1$. Turnover is the number of CFOs who leave firms in year $t-1$. All Moves includes all CFO movements while Moves without M&As excludes M&A or subsidiary-related moves. Moves with M&As is M&A or subsidiary-related moves. Panel C decomposes (A) Move/CFO into (B) Move/Turnover and (C) Turnover/CFO as in Eq. (2) and shows how each component evolves over time.



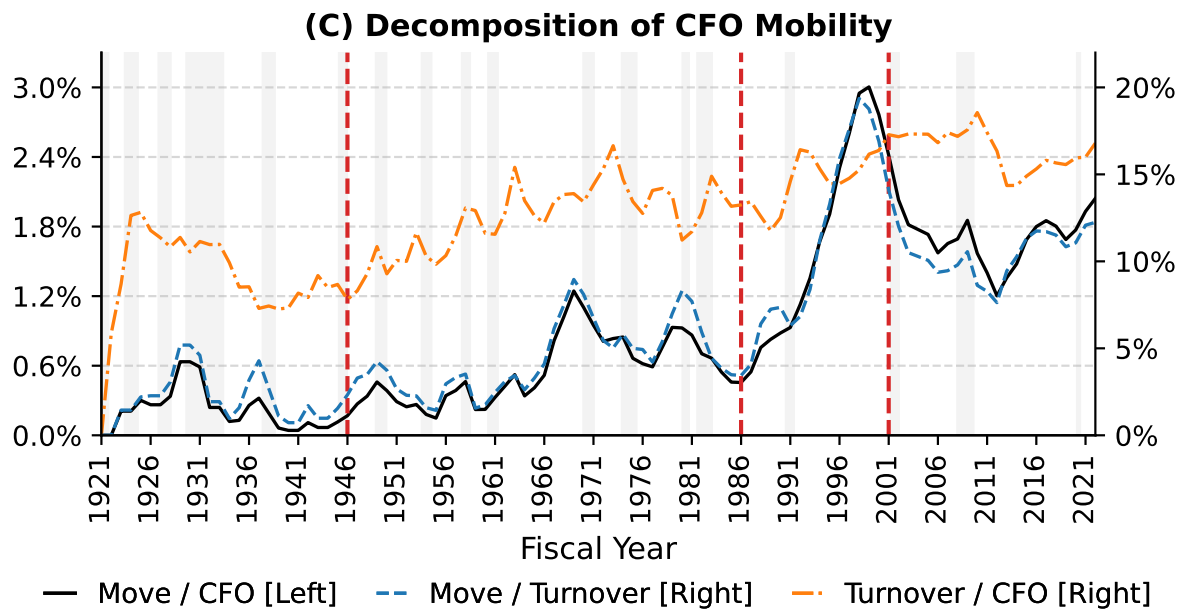
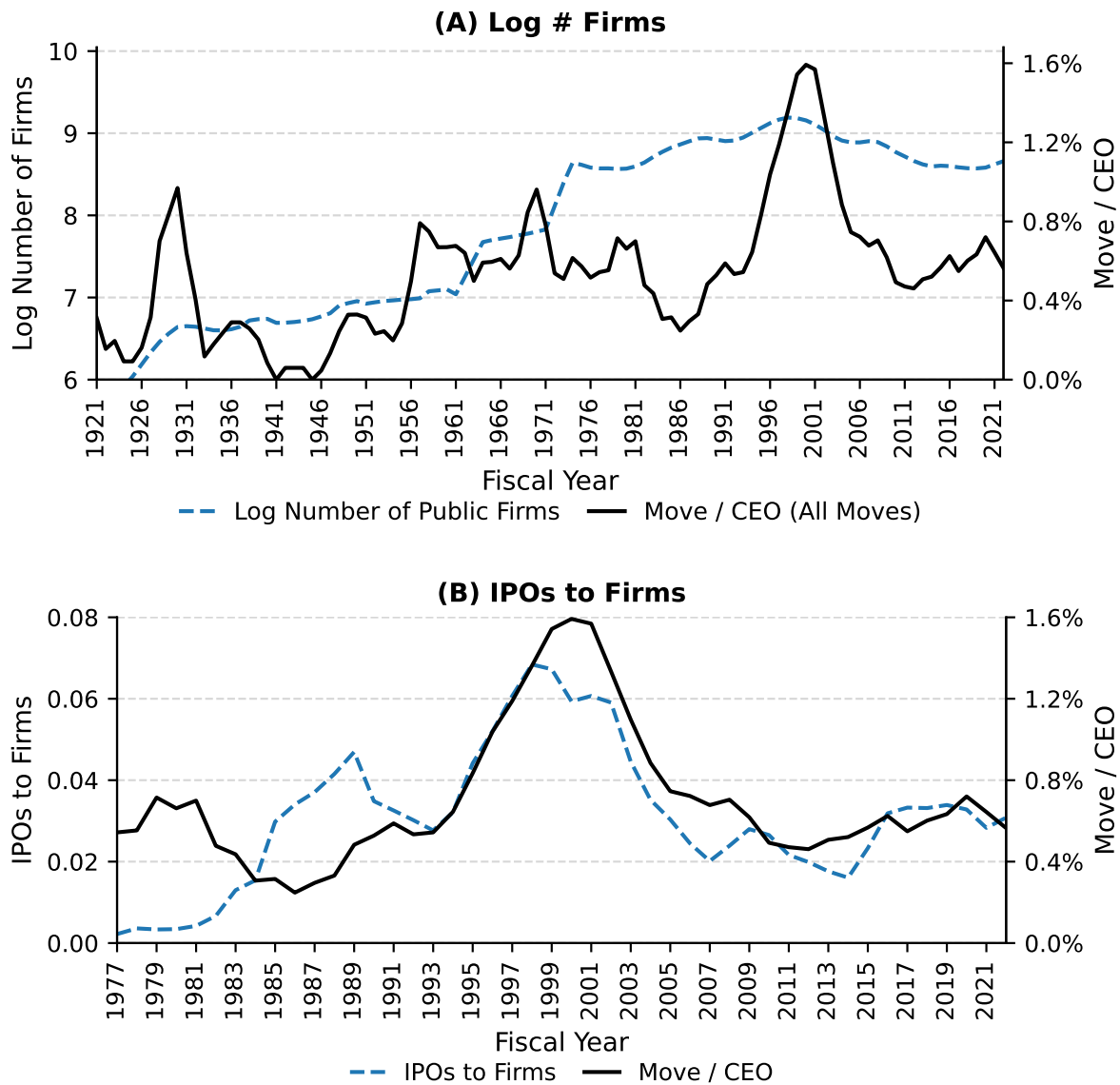


Figure 3. Size of Executive Labor Market and Mobility

This figure compares the trends in variables that potentially explain executive mobility with our mobility measure (three-year moving average). Move is the number of CEOs in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ who become CEOs or other executive officers at other firms in our sample in year t . CEO is the total number CEOs in year $t - 1$. All Moves includes all CEO movements while Moves without M&As excludes M&A or subsidiary-related moves. Panel A shows the log number of NYSE, Amex and Nasdaq listed public firms. Panel B shows the standard deviation of NYSE and Amex listed firms' return on assets. Panel C shows the inverse of the Herfindahl-Hirschman Index of the fraction of CEO moves across one-digit SIC industries over the past ten years. Panel D shows the number of business master's degree programs enrollment over the number of engineering master's degree programs enrollment in the US. Panel E shows the number of completed M&A deals by US public acquirors over the number of NYSE, Amex and Nasdaq listed public firms. Panel F shows the fraction of equity pay (stock and option grants) and option grants over total pay (salary and bonus plus equity pay). Panel G shows the fraction of across-state and across-county CEO moves over the past ten years.



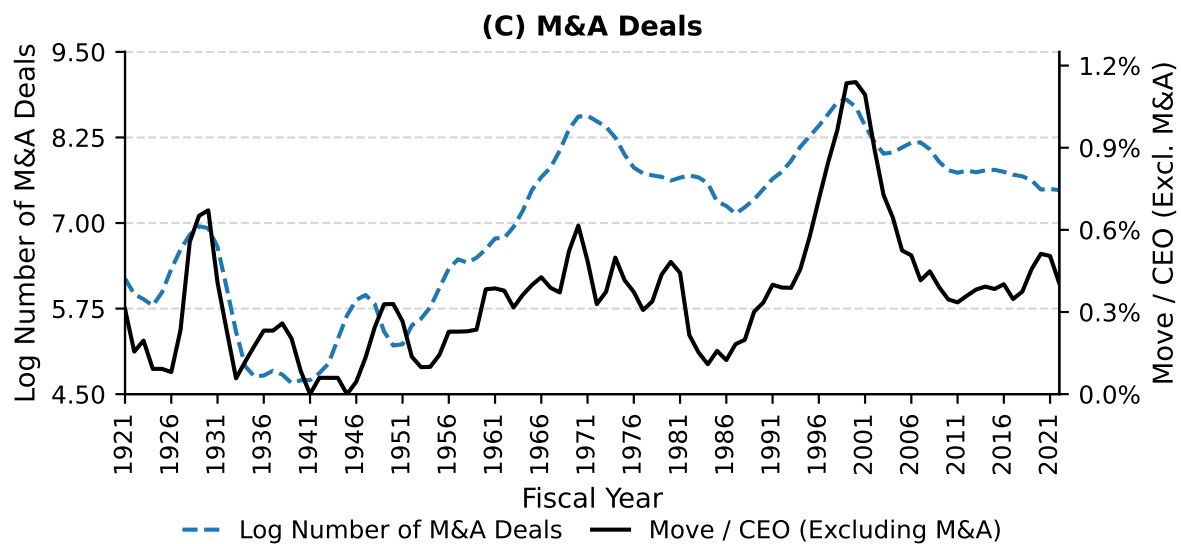


Figure 4. Executive Mobility and Mobility of the Factors of Production

This figure displays the relationship between executive (CEO) mobility and both asset and labor redeployability. Asset redeployability comes from [Kim and Kung \(2017\)](#). Labor redeployability is measured as the inverse-HHI of census moves across IND1990 industries in Census microdata. When labor redeployability is high, workers in the economy move to a broader range of industries. Asset redeployability is available from 1921, labor redeployability is available from 1976 (the year at which census individual IDs became available and individual-level moves across industry became measurable).

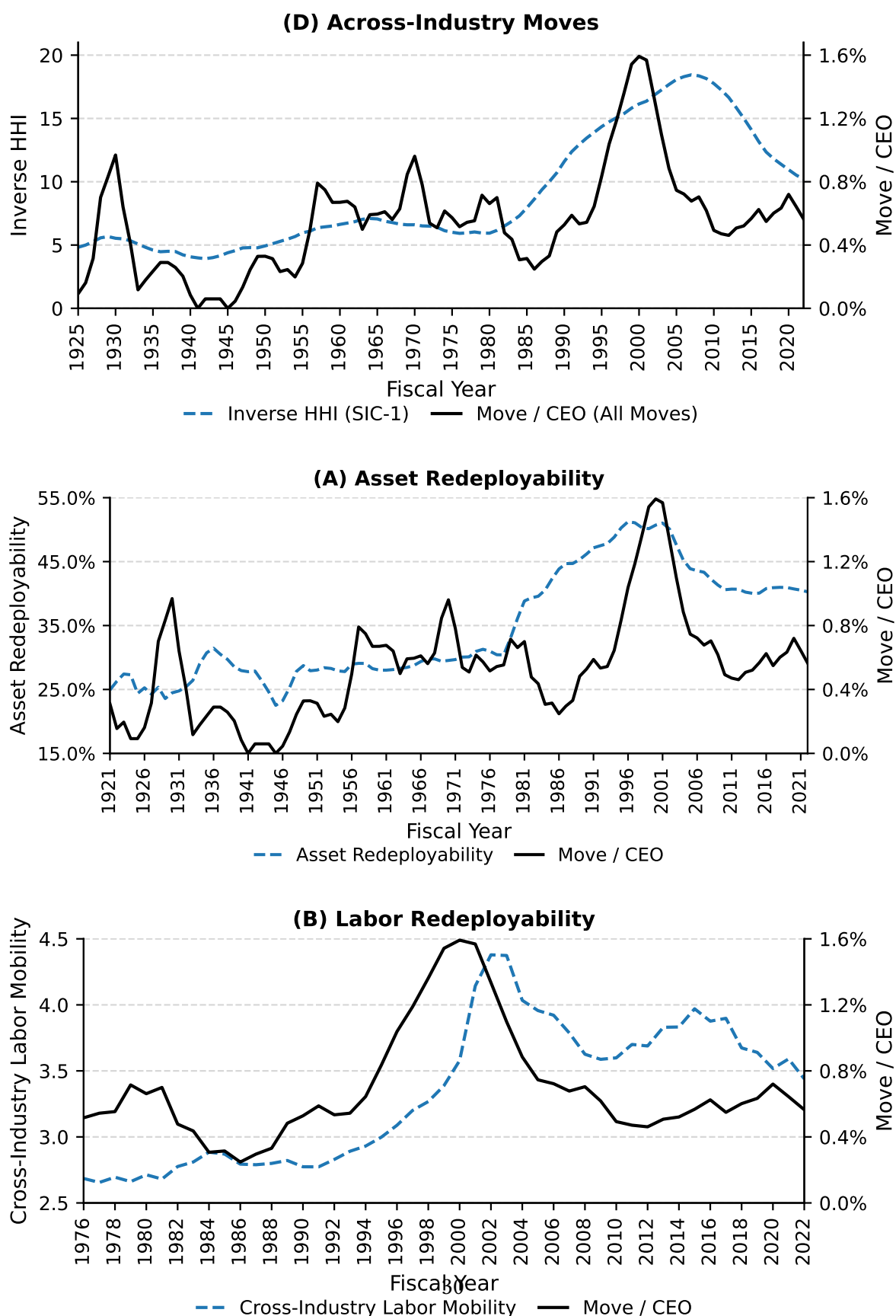


Figure 5. Executive Mobility and Pay

This figure compares trends in executive mobility and trends in executive compensation. Panel A displays average log total pay. Panel B displays both the fraction of option-based pay (Frydman and Saks, 2010) along with the fraction of equity-based pay. Panel C displays the pay to market capitalization ratio. Panel D displays pay-size elasticity, which we measure as regressions of log pay on log size in rolling 5 year windows. Panel E displays pay dispersion, which is the difference between the 90th and 50th percentile of pay in a given year (Jochem et al., 2025).

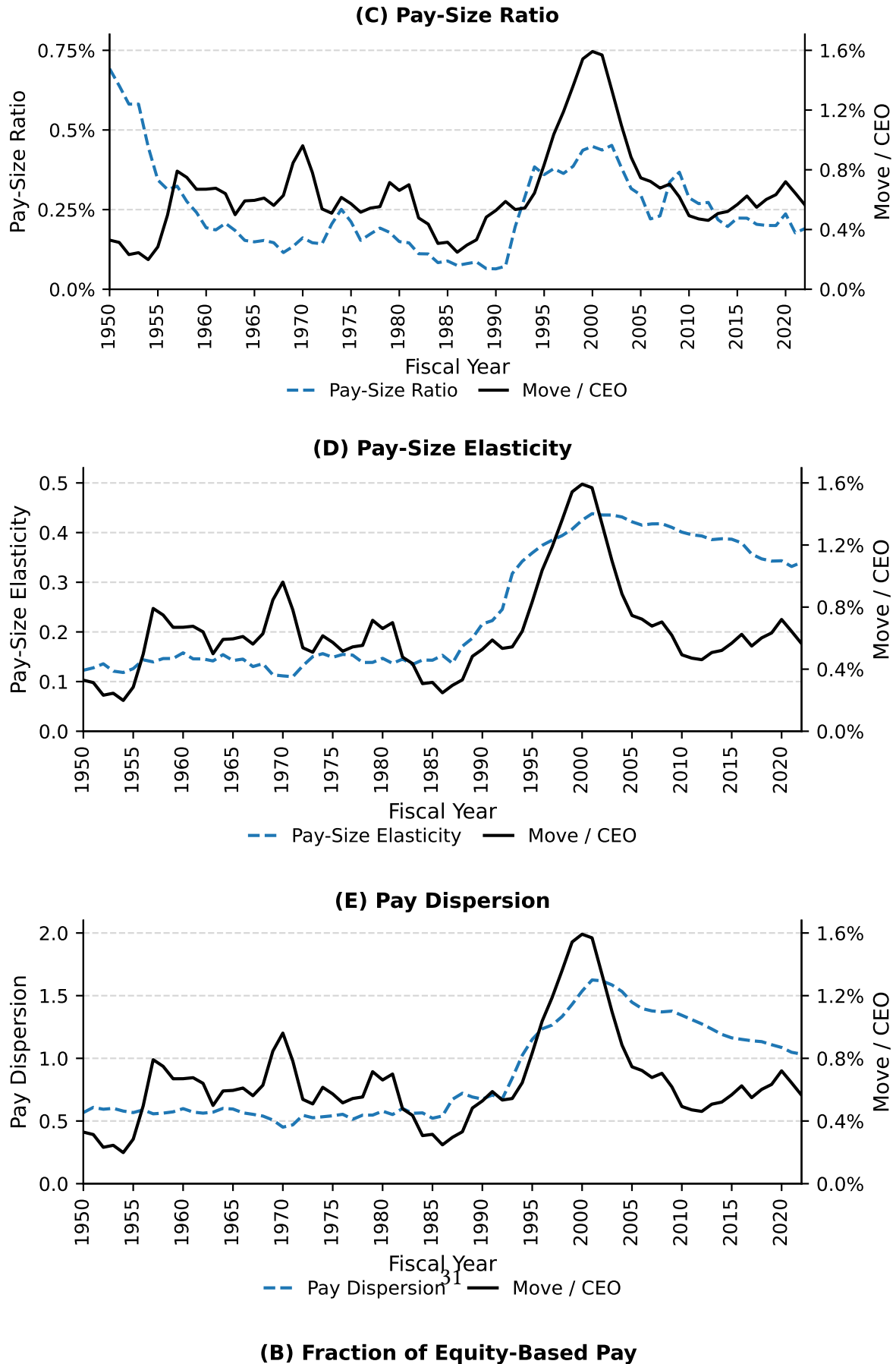


Table 1. CEO and CFO Moves and New Job Titles

This table presents the number of CEOs and CFOs who leave office (Turnovers) and the number of CEOs and CFOs who are hired at new firms (Moves) in our sample from 1920 through 2011 in three different periods. A move is defined as a CEO (CFO) who worked at a firm in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ moves to another firm in year t . The new title is the first new job title of a former CEO (CFO) who moves to a new firm in Panel A (Panel B), with Non-CEO (Non-CFO) indicating a move to a non-CEO (non-CFO) role at the new firm (e.g., COO). Numbers in parentheses are the ratio of the number of former CEOs or CFOs who move to other firms to the number of CEO or CFO turnovers in each period.

Panel A. CEO Turnovers, Moves and New Job Titles

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
	Full Sample	1920-1945	1946-1985	1986-2000	2001-2022
CEO Turnovers	35,366	1,113	5,270	9,969	19,014
Officer of new firm (%)	1,900 (5.37%)	35 (3.14%)	271 (5.14%)	719 (7.21%)	875 (4.60%)
CEO of new firm (%)	837 (2.37%)	14 (1.26%)	62 (1.18%)	276 (2.77%)	485 (2.55%)
Non-CEO officer of new firm (%)	1,063 (3.01%)	21 (1.89%)	209 (3.97%)	443 (4.44%)	390 (2.05%)

Panel B. CFO Turnovers, Moves and New Job Titles

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
	Full Sample	1920-1945	1946-1985	1986-2000	2001-2022
CFO Turnovers	34,397	1,105	6,161	9,242	17,889
Officer of new firm (%)	3,503 (10.18%)	30 (2.71%)	300 (4.87%)	1,270 (13.74%)	1,903 (10.64%)
CFO of new firm (%)	2,813 (8.18%)	15 (1.36%)	167 (2.71%)	977 (10.57%)	1,654 (9.25%)
Non-CFO officer of new firm (%)	690 (2.01%)	15 (1.36%)	133 (2.16%)	293 (3.17%)	249 (1.39%)
CEO of new firm (%)	175 (0.51%)	0 (0.00%)	10 (0.16%)	80 (0.87%)	85 (0.48%)

Table 2. Relative Firm Size, Firm Age, and Compensation for Moving CEOs and CFOs

This table presents the relative firm size and compensation change for CEOs and CFOs who move to other firms from 1920 through 2011. A move is defined as a CEO (CFO) who worked at a firm in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ moves to another firm in year t . New Title is the first job title of an externally hired former CEO (CFO). "Moves to larger firms" is the fraction of former CEOs or CFOs who move to a firm that is larger than their previous firm in terms of total assets. "Moves to newly-listed firms" is the fraction of former CEOs or CFOs who move to firms that were listed within the last five (< 5) years. In each column, we display the baseline proportion of newly-listed firms in our sample in that era (e.g., column 1 shows that 15.38% of firms over the full sample qualify as newly-listed). Below each fraction, we display the "over-representation" rate, the percentage difference between the baseline newly-listed firm proportion and the proportion of CEOs or CFOs that move to newly-listed firms (e.g., column 1 shows that former CEOs move to be CEOs at newly-listed firms at a rate 46.8% higher than the baseline (22.58/15.38-1)). Pay change is the percentage change in an externally hired CEO/CFO salary and bonus plus option and stock grants in the first year, relative to that from her previous employment. We do not present pay change results before 1986 given the small number of observations for which we can observe pay both before and after moves. Changes in pay are winsorized at the 5th and 95th percentiles. The numbers in parentheses are the number of observations underlying the percentages.

Panel A: Moves to Larger Firms

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
	Full Sample	1920- 1945	1946- 1985	1986- 2000	2001- 2022
CEO moves					
All	62.20% (1,651)	68.57% (35)	71.84% (174)	65.05% (641)	57.55% (801)
CEO	51.23% (691)	71.43% (14)	51.22% (41)	51.23% (244)	50.51% (392)
Non-CEO	70.10% (960)	66.67% (21)	78.20% (133)	73.55% (397)	64.30% (409)
CFO moves					
All	50.82% (3,156)	65.52% (29)	49.79% (237)	47.37% (1,161)	53.04% (1,729)
CFO	50.99% (2,524)	60.00% (15)	49.25% (134)	46.52% (892)	53.74% (1,483)
Non-CFO	50.16% (632)	71.43% (14)	50.49% (103)	50.19% (269)	48.78% (246)

Panel B: Moves to Newly-Listed Firms

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
	Full Sample	1920- 1945	1946- 1985	1986- 2000	2001- 2022
Baseline newly-listed firm %:	15.38%	40.78%	20.56%	12.31%	11.22%
CEO moves					
All	19.15% [+24.5%] (1,890)	77.14% [+89.1%] (35)	23.25% [+13.1%] (271)	17.39% [+41.3%] (719)	16.99% [+51.5%] (865)
CEO	22.58% [+46.8%] (828)	78.57% [+92.6%] (14)	30.65% [+49.1%] (62)	21.01% [+70.7%] (276)	20.80% [+85.4%] (476)
Non-CEO	16.48% [+7.1%] (1,062)	76.19% [+86.8%] (21)	21.05% [+2.4%] (209)	15.12% [+22.9%] (443)	12.34% [+10.0%] (389)
CFO moves					
All	14.37% [-6.6%] (3,494)	68.97% [+69.1%] (29)	23.67% [+15.1%] (300)	12.83% [+4.3%] (1,270)	13.09% [+16.7%] (1,895)
CFO	12.94% [-15.9%] (2,806)	73.33% [+79.8%] (15)	22.16% [+7.8%] (167)	10.75% [-12.7%] (977)	12.75% [+13.7%] (1,647)
Non-CFO	20.20% [+31.4%] (688)	64.29% [+57.6%] (14)	25.56% [+24.4%] (133)	19.80% [+60.8%] (293)	15.32% [+36.6%] (248)

Panel C: Pay Changes After Moves

CEO moves					
All	125.18% (394)		180.74% (152)	111.18% (238)	
CEO	76.15% (192)		91.23% (62)	72.44% (130)	
Non-CEO	198.13% (202)		237.80% (90)	155.21% (108)	
CFO moves					
All	98.87% (764)		218.69% (228)	58.95% (531)	
CFO	94.60% (630)		215.01% (174)	53.47% (454)	
Non-CFO	141.61% (134)		216.17% (54)	83.34% (77)	

Table 3. Frequency of CEO Moves between Industries

This table presents the frequency of CEOs moving from a firm in the origination industry to another firm in the destination industry for three time periods from 1920 through 2011. A move is defined as a CEO who worked at a firm in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ moves to another firm in year t . SIC-From is the one-digit SIC industry of the firm that a given CEO departs and SIC-To is the one-digit SIC industry of the firm to which the CEO moves as CEO or another executive. HHI is the Herfindahl-Hirschman Index of the fraction of moves across one-digit SIC industries. The mean fractions are calculated using cells with non-zero values, while the HHI is calculated by assuming zeros for cells with missing values. Across-industry move is the fraction of out-of-industry moves among all moves in a given period.

Indicates top 10% top 25% top 50% industry pairs in terms of frequency of moves within era.

Panel A. 1920-1945: 35 moves (Mean = 7.69%, HHI = 17.55%, Across-industry move = 37.14%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing											
SIC1. Mining & Construction						2.86%					2.86%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing		2.86%	22.86%		2.86%	2.86%					31.43%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing		2.86%	8.57%	31.43%			2.86%	2.86%			48.57%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities											
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade			2.86%			8.57%					11.43%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate		5.71%									5.71%
SIC7. General Services											
SIC8. Professional Services											
SIC9. Public Administration											
Total		11.43%	34.29%	31.43%	2.86%	14.29%	2.86%	2.86%			100.00%

Panel B. 1946-1985: 271 moves (Mean = 2.50%, HHI = 15.75%, Across-industry move = 46.86%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing											
SIC1. Mining & Construction		1.11%	0.74%	1.85%		0.74%			0.37%		4.80%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing		2.21%	11.44%	8.49%	0.37%	1.48%	0.37%	1.11%			25.46%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing		0.74%	8.12%	35.06%	0.74%	4.43%	1.48%	0.37%	0.74%		51.66%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities		0.37%			0.37%	0.74%		0.37%			1.85%
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade		0.37%	2.58%	3.69%		3.69%		0.37%	0.37%		11.07%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate			0.37%		0.37%	0.37%			0.37%		1.48%
SIC7. General Services			0.74%	0.37%		0.37%		1.48%			2.95%
SIC8. Professional Services			0.37%					0.37%			0.74%
SIC9. Public Administration											
Total		4.80%	24.35%	49.45%	1.85%	11.81%	1.85%	4.06%	1.85%		100.00%

Panel C. 1986-2000: 719 moves (Mean = 1.69%, HHI = 6.64%, Across-industry move = 47.98%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing				0.14%				0.28%			0.42%
SIC1. Mining & Construction	0.14%	4.45%	0.70%	0.83%	0.28%	0.14%	0.14%	0.42%	0.14%		7.23%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing	0.28%	0.28%	5.70%	3.76%	1.11%	0.97%		0.70%	1.11%		13.91%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing	0.14%	0.70%	2.64%	19.19%	2.23%	2.36%		3.34%	1.39%		31.99%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities		0.14%		1.11%	3.48%	0.14%		1.25%			6.12%
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade			0.56%	2.64%	0.14%	6.68%	0.14%	1.81%	0.97%		12.93%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate		0.28%						0.42%	0.28%		0.97%
SIC7. General Services		0.14%	0.42%	2.50%	1.53%	1.53%		9.46%	1.25%	0.14%	16.97%
SIC8. Professional Services	0.14%	0.28%	1.95%	1.81%	0.14%	0.42%		1.53%	3.06%		9.32%
SIC9. Public Administration									0.14%		0.14%
Total	0.70%	6.26%	11.96%	31.99%	8.90%	12.24%	0.28%	19.19%	8.34%	0.14%	100.00%

Panel D. 2001-2022: 871 moves (Mean = 1.59%, HHI = 6.18%, Across-industry move = 42.94%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing											
SIC1. Mining & Construction	0.11%	4.36%	0.34%	0.57%	0.57%	0.23%	0.34%		0.23%		6.77%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing	0.23%	0.57%	14.70%	2.64%	0.80%	1.38%	1.38%	0.92%	1.03%		23.65%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing		0.92%	2.64%	12.97%	0.80%	0.69%	0.80%	2.99%	0.69%		22.50%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities		0.11%	0.80%	0.80%	4.48%	0.34%	0.34%	0.69%			7.58%
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade		0.34%	0.57%	1.72%	0.57%	3.67%	0.80%	0.69%			8.38%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate	0.11%	0.69%	0.69%	0.92%	0.92%	0.34%	7.92%	0.69%	0.23%		12.51%
SIC7. General Services	0.11%	0.46%	1.03%	2.64%	0.69%	0.80%	1.15%	7.81%	0.46%		15.15%
SIC8. Professional Services			0.69%	0.69%	0.11%		0.46%	0.34%	1.15%		3.44%
SIC9. Public Administration											
Total	0.57%	7.46%	21.47%	22.96%	8.96%	7.46%	13.20%	14.12%	3.79%		100.00%

Table 4. Frequency of CFO Moves between Industries

This table presents the frequency of CFOs moving from a firm in the origination industry to another firm in the destination industry for three time periods from 1920 through 2011. A move is defined as a CFO who worked at a firm in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ moves to another firm in year t . SIC-From is the one-digit SIC industry of the firm that a given CFO departs and SIC-To is the one-digit SIC industry of the firm to which the CFO moves as CFO or another executive. HHI is the Herfindahl-Hirschman Index of the fraction of moves across one-digit SIC industries. The mean fractions are calculated using cells with non-zero values, while the HHI is calculated by assuming zeros for cells with missing values. Across-industry move is the fraction of out-of-industry moves among all moves in a given period.

Indicates top 10% top 25% top 50% industry pairs in terms of frequency of moves within era.

Panel A. 1920-1945: 30 moves (Mean = 7.69%, HHI = 14.44%, Across-industry move = 46.67%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing											
SIC1. Mining & Construction				6.67%			3.33%				10.00%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing		3.33%	23.33%	13.33%				3.33%			43.33%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing			3.33%	23.33%	3.33%						30.00%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities											
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade				3.33%		6.67%					10.00%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate		3.33%	3.33%								6.67%
SIC7. General Services											
SIC8. Professional Services											
SIC9. Public Administration											
Total		6.67%	30.00%	46.67%	3.33%	6.67%	3.33%	3.33%			100.00%

Panel B. 1946-1985: 300 moves (Mean = 2.33%, HHI = 10.95%, Across-industry move = 53.33%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing											
SIC1. Mining & Construction		1.00%	1.33%	2.00%		1.67%		0.33%			6.33%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing	0.33%	2.67%	13.00%	8.00%	0.67%	2.33%	0.67%	0.33%	0.33%		28.33%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing		3.00%	7.67%	26.33%	1.00%	3.33%	2.33%	1.33%	1.00%		46.00%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities			0.33%	0.33%	0.33%	0.33%		0.33%			1.67%
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade		0.33%	2.00%	4.00%		5.67%	0.33%	0.33%			12.67%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate		0.33%	0.33%	0.33%							1.00%
SIC7. General Services			0.33%	1.67%		0.33%	0.33%	0.33%			3.00%
SIC8. Professional Services				0.67%				0.33%			1.00%
SIC9. Public Administration											
Total	0.33%	7.33%	25.00%	43.33%	2.00%	13.67%	3.67%	3.33%	1.33%		100.00%

Panel C. 1986-2000: 1,270 moves (Mean = 1.64%, HHI = 6.24%, Across-industry move = 55.12%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing								0.08%			0.08%
SIC1. Mining & Construction		3.39%	0.55%	0.55%	0.55%	0.24%		0.55%	0.24%		6.06%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing	0.16%	0.16%	3.78%	3.39%	0.55%	1.10%	0.16%	2.13%	1.42%		12.83%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing	0.08%	0.79%	2.76%	17.01%	1.18%	2.13%	0.08%	8.35%	1.97%		34.33%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities		0.08%	0.24%	1.02%	2.68%	0.39%		2.20%	0.24%	0.08%	6.93%
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade		0.31%	1.10%	1.50%	0.55%	5.28%	0.08%	2.68%	0.55%		12.05%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate					0.08%	0.08%		0.16%			0.31%
SIC7. General Services		0.39%	0.94%	4.02%	0.71%	1.89%	0.16%	10.63%	1.57%		20.31%
SIC8. Professional Services		0.08%	0.87%	1.57%	0.24%	0.55%	0.08%	1.57%	2.13%		7.09%
SIC9. Public Administration											
Total	0.24%	5.20%	10.24%	29.06%	6.54%	11.65%	0.55%	28.35%	8.11%	0.08%	100.00%

Panel D. 2001-2022: 1,901 moves (Mean = 1.41%, HHI = 6.61%, Across-industry move = 45.13%)

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)
	SIC0	SIC1	SIC2	SIC3	SIC4	SIC5	SIC6	SIC7	SIC8	SIC9	Total
SIC0. Agriculture, Forestry, Fishing			0.05%								0.05%
SIC1. Mining & Construction	0.05%	3.52%	0.47%	0.89%	0.16%	0.26%	0.11%	0.26%	0.11%	0.05%	5.89%
SIC2. Light Manufacturing		0.32%	13.52%	3.63%	0.74%	1.16%	0.26%	0.68%	0.63%	0.05%	20.99%
SIC3. Heavy Manufacturing	0.11%	0.79%	4.26%	16.25%	1.05%	1.63%	0.32%	3.79%	1.16%		29.35%
SIC4. Transportation & Public Utilities		0.42%	0.37%	1.21%	2.84%	0.53%	0.16%	1.37%	0.32%		7.21%
SIC5. Wholesale & Retail Trade		0.32%	0.74%	1.58%	0.37%	4.52%	0.47%	0.89%	0.21%		9.10%
SIC6. Finance, Insurance, Real Estate		0.16%	0.26%	0.32%	0.16%	0.26%	5.94%	0.89%	0.26%		8.26%
SIC7. General Services	0.05%	0.21%	1.37%	3.37%	0.68%	1.32%	0.58%	7.31%	0.79%		15.68%
SIC8. Professional Services		0.05%	0.63%	0.79%	0.05%	0.16%	0.26%	0.53%	0.95%		3.42%
SIC9. Public Administration			0.05%								0.05%
Total	0.21%	5.79%	21.73%	28.04%	6.05%	9.84%	8.10%	15.73%	4.42%	0.11%	100.00%

Table 5. Explaining the Trend in Executive Mobility

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6) [†]
Dep. Var.	# CEO Move / # CEO					
Indep. Var.	Log # Firm	IPOs to Firms	Cross-Industry Mobility	Asset Redeployability	Labor Redeployability	Log # M&A
Time period	1921-2022	1978-2022	1925-2022	1921-2022	1976-2022	1921-2022
Average effect	0.898*** (0.153)	0.146** (0.061)	0.754*** (0.172)	0.188** (0.078)	0.182** (0.074)	0.238*** (0.053)
<i>Era-specific effects</i>						
1920–1945	0.313 (0.198)		2.405*** (0.482)	-0.181 (0.199)		0.137* (0.078)
1946–1985	-0.092 (0.099)	-0.578** (0.227)	0.230 (0.344)	-0.276*** (0.085)	-1.071*** (0.269)	0.065* (0.036)
1986–2000	3.707*** (0.508)	0.485*** (0.089)	0.820*** (0.128)	1.324*** (0.228)	0.876*** (0.137)	0.632*** (0.083)
2001–2022	1.448*** (0.418)	0.178*** (0.052)	0.088 (0.074)	0.674*** (0.101)	0.279*** (0.069)	0.401** (0.203)
Macro controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Era dummies	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
N	102	45	98	102	47	102
R ²	0.642	0.686	0.645	0.632	0.806	0.618

[†]: CEO moves exclude M&A or subsidiary-related events

Macroeconomic variables

$\sigma(\text{ROA})$	0.048 (0.065)	0.102 (0.067)	0.021 (0.062)	0.066 (0.065)	0.088** (0.037)	0.065* (0.038)
NBER Recession	0.088*** (0.029)	0.036 (0.101)	0.075* (0.039)	0.065** (0.028)	0.105 (0.088)	0.044* (0.023)
GDP growth	0.010 (0.022)	0.010 (0.053)	0.076*** (0.027)	0.033* (0.019)	0.025 (0.045)	0.027** (0.013)
Credit spread	-0.152*** (0.042)	-0.096 (0.087)	-0.096** (0.037)	-0.090** (0.041)	-0.110* (0.057)	-0.078*** (0.022)
Productivity	-0.173*** (0.032)	0.059 (0.047)	-0.023 (0.042)	-0.138*** (0.037)	0.028 (0.035)	-0.063*** (0.018)
3-month T-bill	0.144*** (0.054)	-0.040 (0.081)	0.103*** (0.036)	0.177*** (0.047)	0.055* (0.029)	0.038 (0.031)
Era dummies	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
N	102	45	98	102	47	102
R^2	0.642	0.686	0.645	0.632	0.806	0.618

†: CEO moves exclude M&A or subsidiary-related events

Table 6. Executive Mobility and Redeployability of the Factors of Production: Time Series Regression Analysis

This table undertakes similar time series regression analysis to Table 5 for our factors of production redeployability measures. In column 1, we consider asset redeployability (1921-2022) and in column 2, we consider Labor redeployability (1976-2022). Controls are the same as in Table 5.

	(1)	(2)
Dep. Var.	# CEO Move / # CEO	
Indep. Var.	Asset Redeployability	Labor Redeployability
Time period	1921- 2022	1976- 2022
Average effect	0.188** (0.078)	0.182** (0.074)
<i>Era-specific effects</i>		
1920–1945	-0.181 (0.199)	
1946–1985	-0.276*** (0.085)	-1.071*** (0.269)
1986–2000	1.324*** (0.228)	0.876*** (0.137)
2001–2022	0.674*** (0.101)	0.279*** (0.069)
Macro controls	Y	Y
Era dummies	Y	Y
N	102	47
R ²	0.632	0.806

Table 7. Executive Mobility and Compensation: Time Series Regression Analysis

This table displays time series regressions mirroring the analysis in Figure 5.

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
Dep. Var.	# CEO Move / # CEO				
Indep. Var.	Equity Share	Option Share	Pay-Size Ratio	Pay-Size Elasticity	Pay Dispersion
Time period	1936-2022	1936-2022	1936-2022	1938-2022	1938-2022
Average effect	0.175 (0.175)	0.106* (0.061)	0.300*** (0.084)	0.261 (0.255)	-0.050 (0.208)
<i>Era-specific effects</i>					
1920–1945	-0.301 (0.363)	-0.278* (0.164)	0.003 (0.112)	-0.169 (0.380)	-0.582 (0.957)
1946–1985	-0.043 (0.208)	-0.037 (0.130)	-0.077 (0.060)	0.074 (0.551)	-0.387 (0.358)
1986–2000	0.762*** (0.059)	0.543*** (0.044)	0.889*** (0.164)	0.496*** (0.062)	0.495*** (0.031)
2001–2022	0.389 (0.449)	0.245*** (0.035)	0.718*** (0.252)	0.596** (0.287)	0.385*** (0.109)
Macro controls	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Era dummies	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
N	87	87	87	85	85
R^2	0.655	0.693	0.673	0.673	0.720

Table 8. Cross-Sectional Determinants of Executive Mobility

This table presents logit regression estimation results for the determinants of executive mobility in the cross-section of firms from 1921 through 2011. 1(Move) is an indicator that is equal to one in year t if a CEO moves to another firm by year $t + 1$ or $t + 2$, and zero otherwise. A move is defined as a CEO who worked at a firm in year $t - 2$ or $t - 1$ moves to another firm in year t . 1 [Turnover] is an indicator that is equal to one in year t if a CEO leaves a firm by year $t + 1$ or $t + 2$, and zero otherwise. Average Industry ROA is the annual average of firm-level ROAs at the two-digit SIC industry level. Stddev of Industry ROA is the annual standard deviation of firm-level ROAs at the two-digit SIC industry level. All firm characteristics are defined in the Appendix. Columns 1-3 and 7-9 are on the full sample, and columns 4-6 are on the sample in which there is CEO turnover in year $t + 1$ or year $t + 2$ (1 [Turnover] = 1). ROA (before calculating industry average and dispersion) and Tobin's Q are Winsorized at the 1% and 99% levels, and all variables are standardized to unit variance in the regression. Standard errors are displayed below coefficients in parentheses and are double-clustered at the two-digit SIC industry and year levels.

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
	1 [Move] (Full sample)			1 [Move] (Turnover sample)			1 [Turnover] (Full sample)		
ROA	-0.194*** (0.034)	-0.199*** (0.033)	-0.200*** (0.034)	-0.290* (0.155)	-0.362** (0.152)	-0.292* (0.155)	-2.678*** (0.115)	-2.519*** (0.112)	-2.716*** (0.115)
Tobin's Q	-0.062** (0.028)	-0.074*** (0.028)	-0.074*** (0.028)	0.106 (0.148)	0.083 (0.149)	0.099 (0.149)	-1.969*** (0.099)	-2.009*** (0.101)	-2.051*** (0.101)
Log Assets	0.145*** (0.028)	0.152*** (0.028)	0.152*** (0.028)	0.362** (0.144)	0.398*** (0.145)	0.368** (0.146)	1.213*** (0.099)	1.213*** (0.099)	1.268*** (0.100)
CEO tenure	-0.337*** (0.019)	-0.337*** (0.019)	-0.337*** (0.019)	-0.197 (0.189)	-0.205 (0.189)	-0.198 (0.189)	-8.179*** (0.131)	-8.172*** (0.130)	-8.179*** (0.131)
Average Industry ROA	-0.119*** (0.037)		0.006 (0.063)	-0.812*** (0.185)		-0.721** (0.330)	0.761*** (0.133)		1.642*** (0.226)
σ (Industry ROA)		0.174*** (0.040)	0.179*** (0.068)		0.848*** (0.200)	0.130 (0.356)		-0.323** (0.152)	1.264*** (0.256)
Observations	181,356	181,356	181,356	25,691	25,691	25,691	181,356	181,356	181,356
R-squared	0.004	0.004	0.004	0.009	0.009	0.009	0.070	0.070	0.070
Year FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Mean of dep. var.		0.830%			3.826%			14.166%	